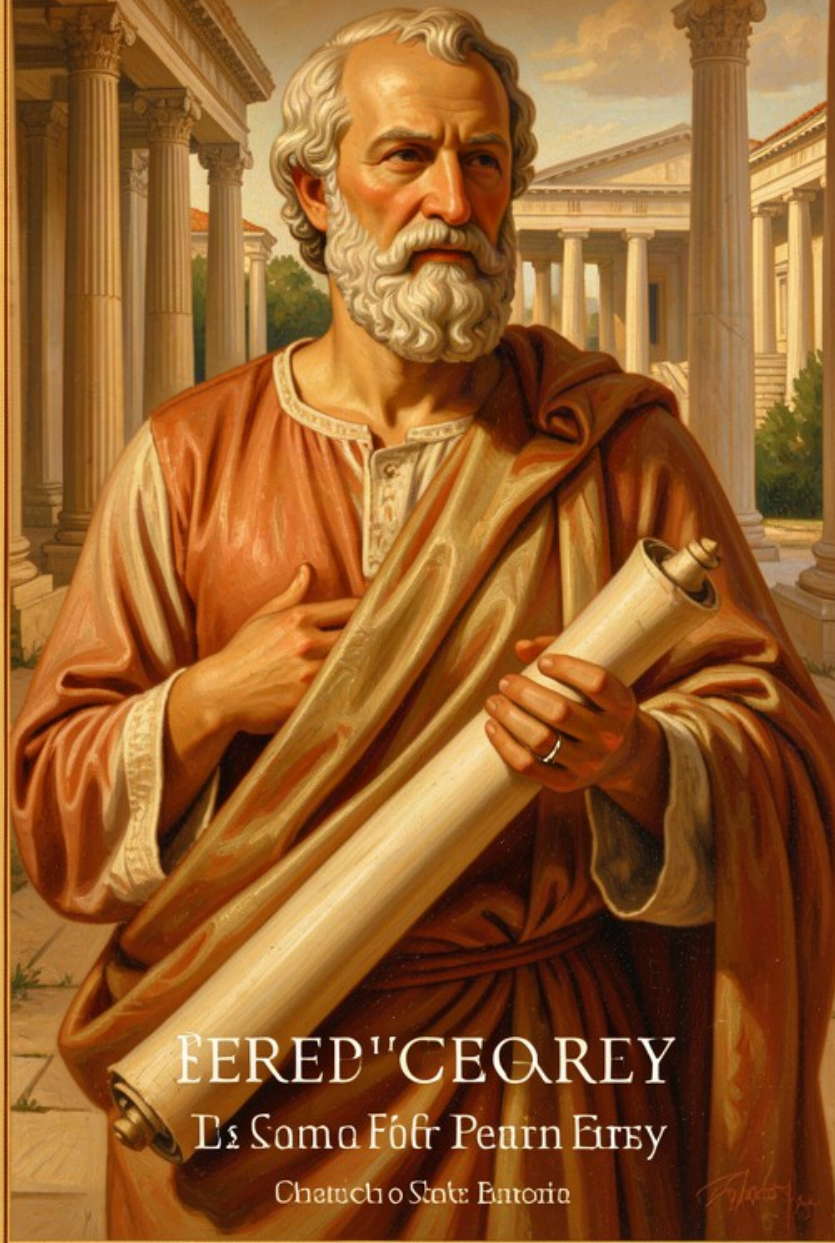


ΣΗΑΤΟ ΒΡΕΠΟΣ

ΤΒΒΙΣΑΕΝΙ COCONEA



ΕΕΡΕΔ' CΕQREY

Δε Σομα Φόρ Ρεαρν Είρεγ

Chetuchi o State Entoria

Aristotle: The Architecture of the Good Life

WisdomForge Booklet — Adult

Aristotle: The Architecture of the Good Life

WisdomForge Booklet — Adult

About This Book

This booklet reads Aristotle as a philosopher of the good life, of character, of friendship, of the mind, and of the structure of reality. Drawing on the *Nicomachean Ethics*, *Physics*, *Metaphysics*, *On the Soul*, *Politics*, and *Poetics*, it traces six threads through Aristotle's work: the good life as the aim of all activity, the doctrine of the mean as the structure of virtue, the three kinds of friendship, contemplation as the highest happiness, the four causes as a framework for understanding, and the Unmoved Mover as the first cause of all motion.

Each chapter combines scholarly precision with practical application. The goal is not admiration but use. Aristotle wrote dense, technical treatises for serious inquirers, not polished books for general readers. But his questions — What is the good life? How do we become good people? What is real? How should we reason? — remain urgent. His method — careful observation, clear definition, review of opinions, patient working-through — remains a model for thinking. His answers are not always ours. We do not share his views on slavery, women, or the structure of the cosmos. But the places where his conclusions diverge from ours are instructive, and the method that produced them is still worth apprenticing yourself to.

Chapter 1: The Good Life — Every Activity Aims at the Good



Illustration for Chapter 1

It begins with a purchase — not of a garden, as with Epicurus, but of a grove. Around 335 BCE, a man in his late forties returned to Athens after twelve years away and began walking and teaching in a grove near the temple of Apollo Lyceus, on the eastern edge of the city. His name was Aristotle. He had been away first in Assos, on the coast of Asia Minor, where he married and began his own philosophical work, and then in Macedon, where he tutored a teenage prince named Alexander — the boy who would, within a decade, conquer the known world and send specimens back to his old teacher from his campaigns.

Now Aristotle was back in Athens, and he founded a school. They called it the Lyceum, after the grove where it met. The Lyceum was not like Plato's Academy, where Aristotle had spent twenty years as a student. The Academy focused on mathematics and dialectic. The Lyceum focused on observation and classification. Aristotle and his students collected data — on the constitutions of 158 Greek cities, on the parts and behaviors of animals, on the history of philosophy, on the weather, on the Olympic victors. The treatises Aristotle wrote — the *Nicomachean Ethics*, the *Politics*, the *Metaphysics*, the *Physics*, *On the Soul*, the *Poetics* — are the theoretical residue of this empirical program. They read like lecture notes because they are.

Aristotle was born in 384 BCE in Stagira, a small town in northern Greece. His father was the personal physician to the king of Macedon, which meant he grew up around medicine, science, and the observation of living things. He came to Athens at seventeen to study at Plato's Academy, where he stayed for twenty years. Plato was his teacher, and the two men respected each other, but Aristotle was never going to be a Platonist. Where Plato looked upward — toward eternal Forms in a realm beyond the senses — Aristotle looked around him. Where Plato began with the Forms and derived the sensible world from them, Aristotle began with the sensible world and worked toward its underlying principles. The difference in method is also a difference in temperament. Plato was a visionary. Aristotle was an observer.

The *Nicomachean Ethics* — probably named for Aristotle's son or his father, both called Nicomachus — is his most famous work. It asks the most practical question in philosophy: How should a human being live? Aristotle opens with an observation that is more radical than it first appears:

Every art and every inquiry, and likewise every action and choice, seems to aim at some good; hence the good has been well described as that at which all things aim.
(**Nicomachean Ethics** I.1, 1094a1–3)

Notice the modesty. Aristotle says "seems" and "has been well described." He is not proving the existence of a highest good on the first page. He is setting up a question. Every craft, investigation, action, and decision has a goal. Medicine aims at health. Shipbuilding aims at

a vessel. Strategy aims at victory. If there is a single end that we want for its own sake — not for the sake of anything else — that end would be the highest good. The rest of the *Ethics* is the attempt to answer: What is that good?

Aristotle identifies it as *eudaimonia*. The word is often translated as "happiness," but that is misleading. Happiness suggests a feeling — something that comes and goes with circumstances. *Eudaimonia* is not a feeling. It is a whole life lived well. Aristotle defines it as activity of the soul in accordance with virtue, sustained over a complete lifetime, with enough external goods to make virtue possible. A flourishing life, not a happy mood.

To arrive at this definition, Aristotle uses what scholars call the function argument. Every thing has a function, and the good of that thing is performing its function well. A good knife cuts well. A good eye sees well. A good flute player exercises the function of flute playing well. What is the function of a human being? Not merely living (plants do that) or sensing (animals do that). The distinctively human function is the activity of the soul in accordance with reason.

*The good for man is an activity of the soul in accordance with virtue, and if there are several virtues, in accordance with the best and most complete. (*Nicomachean Ethics* I.7, 1098a16–18)*

The function argument is one of the most discussed passages in ancient ethics. Three scholarly debates are worth noting.

The naturalistic fallacy objection. Does the function argument illegitimately derive an "ought" from an "is"? G. E. Moore, in *Principia Ethica* (1903), accused Aristotle (and all naturalistic ethics) of committing the naturalistic fallacy — defining "good" in terms of a natural property (in Aristotle's case, rational activity). If "good" just means "rational activity," then the statement "rational activity is good" is tautological and uninformative. Aristotle's defenders respond that the function argument is not defining "good" in terms of a natural property. It is making a teleological claim: things have natures, and the good of a thing is the actualization of its nature. The "ought" is not imposed from outside. It follows from what the thing is. A knife that does not cut is a bad knife — not because someone decided cutting is good, but because cutting is what a knife is for. Similarly, a human being who does not think, choose, and act well is not flourishing — not because someone decided that rational activity is good, but because rational activity is what a human being is for.

The inclusivism debate. Is *eudaimonia* a single activity (contemplation, as Book X argues) or an inclusive whole that includes multiple goods (moral virtue, friendship, pleasure, external goods)? The "inclusivist" reading, defended by J. L. Ackrill and others, holds that *eudaimonia* is the whole of a good life, not a single activity within it. The "dominant"

reading, associated with the final chapters of the *Ethics*, holds that contemplation is the single highest good and other goods are subordinate. The debate is unresolved and shapes how the entire *Ethics* is read. If inclusivism is right, the *Ethics* is a harmonious account of the good life. If the dominant reading is right, the *Ethics* ends by subordinating most of what it argued for to contemplation.

The external goods problem. Aristotle insists that *eudaimonia* requires "enough external goods" — resources, health, freedom, friendship. This creates a tension. If the good life depends on external goods, then it is not entirely under the agent's control. A person crushed by poverty, tyranny, or tragedy may not be able to flourish, no matter how virtuous their intentions. Martha Nussbaum, in *The Fragility of Goodness* (1986), develops this point: Aristotle's ethics acknowledges the role of luck in human life, and this makes it more honest but also more fragile than a system that locates the good entirely in the agent's will (as the Stoics would). The question of whether virtue is sufficient for happiness — or whether happiness also requires goods beyond the agent's control — is one of the deepest tensions in ancient ethics.

The practical consequence of the function argument is that the good life is not something that happens to you. It is something you *do*. You become a good person by acting well — repeatedly, habitually, over time. We become brave by doing brave things, just by doing just things, temperate by practicing temperance. Excellence (*arete*) is not an act but a habit. The Greek word means excellence, not moral purity. It is the excellence of a thing functioning well.

The Big Idea

Aristotle's ethics is teleological: it is structured by ends, not by rules. Every activity aims at some good. The highest good is *eudaimonia* — flourishing, the full actualization of human potential, defined as activity of the soul in accordance with virtue over a complete life. The function argument grounds this: the good of a thing is performing its function well, and the function of a human being is rational activity. Therefore the good life is rational activity in accordance with virtue.

This changes the question you ask yourself. Instead of "Am I happy?" (a question about feelings) or "Am I following the rules?" (a question about compliance), you ask "Am I flourishing?" (a question about the whole shape of your life). Am I exercising my distinctive capacities well? Am I building the habits — brave, generous, honest, temperate — that constitute a good character? The good life is not a destination. It is an activity, sustained over time, built one choice at a time.

Practice

The Aim Map. List five things you are pursuing right now — a career goal, a relationship, a skill, a project, a status. For each, ask: What is this *for*? Keep asking until you reach something you want for its own sake. That thing is your candidate for the highest good. Is it worthy? Can it carry the weight of your whole life? If your answer is "career success" or "financial security," ask what *that* is for. Aristotle's bet is that if you keep asking, you will eventually arrive at something like *eudaimonia* — a whole life lived well. If you arrive somewhere else, notice what that says about your hierarchy of goods.

The Function Test. Aristotle says the function of a human being is rational activity. Test it. What are the capacities that make you distinctively human? Thinking, choosing, deliberating, creating, loving, building, governing. Which of these are you exercising well? Which are you neglecting? If the good life is the actualization of your distinctive capacities, then the question is not "What do I enjoy?" but "What am I built for, and am I using it?"

The Habit Audit. Aristotle says excellence is a habit, not an act. Audit your habits. Pick one virtue — honesty, courage, generosity, justice — and track your choices around it for one week. Each time you make a choice related to that virtue, write down what you did. At the end of the week, look at the pattern. Are your choices building the virtue or undermining it? The audit is not about guilt. It is about data. Character is built through repeated action. The audit shows you what you are building.

The External Goods Check. Aristotle says *eudaimonia* requires "enough external goods." What are yours? Do you have enough resources, health, freedom, and friendship to make virtue possible? If not, what would it take to get there? If yes, are you using your external goods well, or are you wasting the conditions that make a good life possible? This exercise counters the temptation to think the good life is purely internal. Aristotle says it is not. Lives require conditions.

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle says you should "call no man happy until he is dead," because a single catastrophe can undo a life's flourishing. This means the good life cannot be assessed at any single moment — only from the perspective of a complete life. Is this too demanding? Does it make the good life unreachable? Or does it take seriously the fact that a life is a whole, not a series of moments? What would it mean to live as if your flourishing could only be assessed

from the perspective of your complete life — and would that change what you prioritize today?

Chapter 2: The Doctrine of the Mean — Virtue Is a Habit of Choice

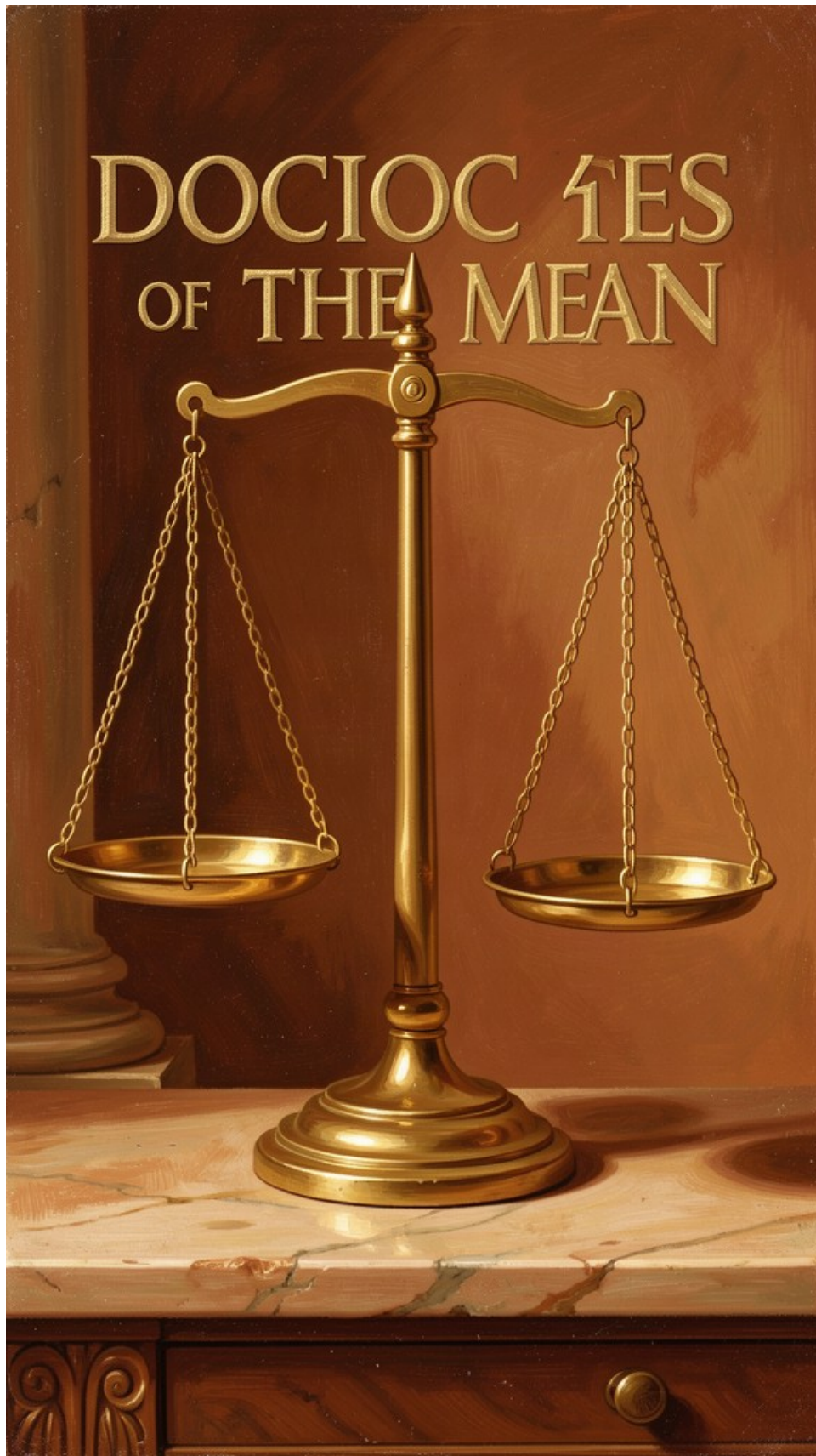


Illustration for Chapter 2

The doctrine of the mean is the most famous — and the most misunderstood — idea in Aristotle's ethics. It is not a call for moderation in all things. It is not a recommendation to split the difference. It is a theory of what virtue *is* and how it is *built*.

Aristotle's argument, in *Nicomachean Ethics* Book II, goes like this. Moral virtue is a settled state of character — not a feeling, not a capacity, but a *hexis*, a dispositional state that determines how you choose. Each virtue lies between two vices: one of excess, one of deficiency. Courage is between cowardice (deficiency) and rashness (excess). Generosity is between stinginess (deficiency) and prodigality (excess). Truthfulness is between self-deprecation (deficiency) and boastfulness (excess). The virtue is the mean — the right amount, in the right way, at the right time, toward the right person, for the right reason.

*Virtue is a state of character concerned with choice, lying in a mean, i.e., the mean relative to us, this being determined by rational principle and by that by which the practically wise person would determine it. (*Nicomachean Ethics* II.6, 1106b36–1107a2)*

The key phrase is "the mean relative to us." The mean is not a mathematical midpoint. It is the right response for this particular person, in this particular situation, with these particular facts. The mean for a trained soldier facing danger is different from the mean for an untrained civilian. The mean for giving to a friend in genuine need is different from the mean for giving to a manipulative stranger. The mean is determined by *phronesis* — practical wisdom, the intellectual virtue that allows you to discern what virtue requires when rules run out.

This is why the doctrine of the mean is not moderation. Sometimes the right response is intense. Sometimes it is restrained. The point is not to be in the middle. The point is to respond appropriately — to the right person, at the right time, for the right reason, in the right amount.

Aristotle makes a crucial qualification. Some actions are wrong in themselves, not because of excess or deficiency. Murder, theft, betrayal, adultery — these are not on a spectrum. There is no "right amount" of murder. You cannot be "moderately" treacherous. These actions are wrong by their nature. The doctrine of the mean applies to virtues that involve feelings and actions that can be done well or badly. It does not apply to actions that are always wrong.

The second part of the doctrine is about how virtue is built. Aristotle is emphatic: virtue is not innate. You become virtuous through practice.

*We become just by doing just things, temperate by doing temperate things, brave by doing brave things. (*Nicomachean Ethics* II.1, paraphrased)*

This is the habit argument. You learn virtue the way you learn a craft. A builder learns to build by building. A harpist learns to play by playing. A person learns to be brave by acting bravely — first in small situations, then in larger ones — until brave action becomes a settled disposition. The more you practice the mean, the more natural it becomes. Eventually, the practically wise person does not need to calculate the mean consciously. They have internalized it. Their character is the mean.

This has a paradoxical implication. Aristotle says that to become virtuous, you must act as the virtuous person would act — but you cannot do this well until you are already virtuous. It is like learning to play the piano: you must play to learn, but you cannot play well until you have learned. The solution is that you start badly. You practice the mean imperfectly, in small situations, and you get better over time.

Practical wisdom (*phronesis*) is what makes this possible. It is the intellectual virtue that allows you to perceive the mean in particular situations. Rules cannot do this. "Be brave" does not tell you how brave to be in *this* situation, with *this* danger, given *your* capabilities. "Be generous" does not tell you how much to give to *this* person, in *these* circumstances. Practical wisdom is the capacity to read the situation and discern what virtue requires. It is learned through experience, not through instruction. Aristotle calls it "the eye of the soul" — the faculty that sees what is good in particular cases.

Two scholarly debates are worth noting.

The unity of the virtues. Aristotle appears to argue that the moral virtues are unified — that you cannot have one without the others, because all of them require practical wisdom, and practical wisdom requires all of them. This is the "unity of virtue" thesis. If it is right, then you cannot be brave without also being just, generous, and temperate. If it is wrong, then virtues can come separately — a person can be brave but unjust, generous but intemperate. The debate matters because it determines whether virtue is a whole or a collection. Aristotle's text is ambiguous. Some passages suggest unity (practical wisdom is the same regardless of which virtue it serves). Others suggest separability (he discusses people who have one virtue but lack another). The issue remains open.

The role of **akrasia (weakness of will).** Aristotle devotes *Nicomachean Ethics* Book VII to the problem of *akrasia* — knowing what is good but failing to do it. This is the problem of moral failure, and it is one of the most difficult in philosophy. Aristotle's account: the *akratic* person has the right belief about what to do, but their reason is temporarily overcome by appetite or emotion. They know what is good, but they do not do it, because at the moment of action, their knowledge is "asleep" or displaced by desire. This is not the same as ignorance (you do not know what is good) or vice (you do not care what is good). It is a third condition: you know, you care, and you still fail. Aristotle's account of *akrasia* has

been enormously influential — it shaped the Western philosophical understanding of weakness of will from antiquity through Donald Davidson's 1969 essay "How Is Weakness of the Will Possible?" and into contemporary action theory.

The Big Idea

The doctrine of the mean says that virtue is a settled state of character that disposes you to choose the mean — the right response, in the right amount, at the right time, toward the right person, for the right reason. The mean is not a midpoint. It is the response a practically wise person would make. Virtue is built through practice: you become brave by acting bravely, generous by giving, honest by telling the truth — repeatedly, until the behavior becomes a settled disposition.

The crucial concept is *phronesis* — practical wisdom. Rules cannot tell you what the mean is in a particular situation. Only practical wisdom can. And practical wisdom is learned through experience, not through instruction. This means Aristotle's ethics is not a rule-based system. It is a virtue-based system. The question is not "What is the rule?" but "What would a person of practical wisdom do here?" — and the answer requires judgment, perception, and experience.

Practice

The Mean Map. Pick a virtue you want to develop. Identify the two vices on either side: one of excess, one of deficiency. Track yourself for one week. Each time you make a choice related to that virtue, write down: What did you do? Was it the mean, or did you fall to excess or deficiency? What would the mean have looked like? At the end of the week, look for patterns. Do you consistently fall to one side? What situations push you there?

The Anger Audit. Aristotle says there is a virtue concerned with anger — the right amount, at the right person, for the right reason, for the right duration. Track your anger for one week. Each time you feel angry, write down: At whom? Why? How intense? How long did it last? Was the anger proportionate? At the end of the week, assess: Are you angry at the right things, or at the wrong things? Is your anger proportionate, or excessive or deficient? The mean is not "don't get angry." It is "get angry at the right things, to the right degree, for the right duration."

The Habit Experiment. Pick one virtue and practice it deliberately for two weeks. Not in general — in specific actions. If honesty: tell the truth in five situations where you would normally hedge, soften, or avoid. If generosity: give five things — time, attention, a

possession, a turn, a kind word — that you would normally keep. If courage: do five things that scare you (within reason). At the end of two weeks, ask: Has the practice made the virtue easier? Does it feel more natural? Aristotle says virtue is built through repetition. Test the claim.

The Practical Wisdom Exercise. Take a moral question from your own life — a workplace conflict, a parenting decision, a financial choice. Try to answer it with a rule. Then try to answer it by asking: What would a person of practical wisdom do in this exact situation? Notice the difference. The rule gives you an answer. Practical wisdom gives you a *better* answer — one that accounts for the particulars the rule cannot reach.

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle says virtue is a habit built through repeated choices, and that practical wisdom is learned through experience, not through books. This means you cannot become virtuous by reading about virtue. You can only become virtuous by practicing it, in real situations, with real consequences, over time. Is this encouraging or discouraging? It means anyone can become virtuous — but it also means there are no shortcuts. What would it look like to treat your moral development the way you treat your development in your craft or profession — as something that requires daily practice, honest feedback, and years of work? And what would it cost you to stop treating virtue as something you already have and start treating it as something you are building?

Chapter 3: The Ladder of Friendship — Three Kinds of Friendship



Illustration for Chapter 3

Aristotle dedicated two full books of the *Nicomachean Ethics* — Books Eight and Nine — to friendship. More space than he gives to any other topic. This is not accidental. For Aristotle, friendship is not a pleasant addition to a good life. It is necessary for a good life. You cannot flourish alone.

*Without friends no one would choose to live, though he had all other goods.
(*Nicomachean Ethics* VIII.1, 1155a5)*

The argument is teleological. Human beings are political animals — we are made to live in communities. But the *polis* is not enough. The city provides the framework for a good life — laws, institutions, education — but it does not provide the intimate bonds that make life worth living. Those bonds are friendships. Without them, even the best city is a structure without a soul.

Aristotle distinguishes three kinds of friendship, based on what the friends love in each other:

*There are therefore three kinds of friendship, equal in number to the things that are lovable. Now those who love each other for their utility do not love each other for themselves but insofar as some good arises for them from each other. Similarly too with those who love for pleasure; for they do not love witty people for their characters but insofar as they are pleasant to them. The friendship of the good, however, is the friendship of those who are good in themselves. (*Nicomachean Ethics* VIII.3, 1156a10–16)*

Friendship for utility. You are friends because you are useful to each other. Business contacts, professional connections, neighbors who help each other out. This is a real friendship — it involves goodwill and mutual benefit. But it is incomplete. When the usefulness ends, the friendship fades. It was never about the person. It was about the benefit.

Friendship for pleasure. You are friends because you enjoy each other. Teammates, party friends, people who share an interest or a sense of humor. This too is real friendship. But it is also incomplete. When the pleasure ends, the friendship fades. It was about the enjoyment, not the person.

Friendship for virtue. You are friends because you are both good people, and you love each other for who you are. This friendship is the fullest form. It is durable, because it does not depend on circumstances. It is mutual, because good people wish each other good for their own sake. And it is morally formative, because good friends make each other better. Aristotle says the best friend is "a second self" — someone whose good you wish as you wish your own.

The first two are not bad. Aristotle is explicit about this. It is good to be useful to each other. It is good to enjoy each other. Most friendships involve some mix of all three. But only the third is friendship in the fullest sense, because only the third loves the other person for who they are, not for what they provide.

The third kind is rare, and Aristotle explains why. It requires time and shared life — trust is built through tested reliability, not through declarations. It requires moral similarity — you cannot be virtue friends with someone whose values you fundamentally do not share. It requires goodwill that is not transactional. And it requires scarcity — you can only have a few friendships of this depth, because each one demands sustained attention and care.

Aristotle also considers whether self-love is possible. Can you be a friend to yourself? His answer is yes — but only if you are a good person. A vicious person is at war with themselves, because their desires conflict with their reason. A good person is friends with themselves, because their desires and their reason are in harmony. The friendship of virtue is, in a sense, an extension of the right kind of self-love: you love your friend the way you love your own best self, wishing them good for their own sake.

A scholarly debate worth noting. Aristotle's threefold classification has been challenged as incomplete. Some scholars argue that it misses important forms of friendship — collegial friendship (built on shared professional commitment), civic friendship (built on shared citizenship), and what some modern philosophers call "friendship of association" (built on proximity and routine, like neighbors or coworkers). These are not reducible to utility, pleasure, or virtue. They have their own dynamics. Aristotle's classification may be a starting point, not a complete taxonomy.

The analysis has a sharp edge for modern life. Social media tends to produce utility- and pleasure-based friendships — connections built on shared interests, mutual benefit, or the pleasure of interaction, but not on deep mutual knowledge and moral commitment. These are not bad. But they are not the third kind. And if you treat them as if they were — if you expect a social media connection to carry the weight that only a virtue friend can carry — you will be disappointed. The disappointment is not the friend's fault. It is a category error. You asked a first- or second-kind friendship to do third-kind work.

The Big Idea

Aristotle's three kinds of friendship are not a ranking from bad to good. They are an analysis of what friendships are built on, and therefore of what they can carry. Utility friendships are built on mutual benefit. Pleasure friendships are built on shared enjoyment. Virtue friendships are built on mutual recognition of each other's goodness. All three are

real. But only the third is durable under pressure, because only the third does not depend on circumstances.

The third kind is also morally formative. Good friends make each other better. They hold each other accountable, model virtue for each other, and create a shared life in which goodness is practiced and reinforced. Aristotle says the best friend is "a second self" — and this means friendship is not just a relationship. It is a mirror. You become like the people you spend your life with. Choose your friends carefully, because they are choosing who you become.

Practice

The Friendship Map. Make three columns: Utility, Pleasure, Virtue. List your friendships under the column that best describes what each is built on. Be honest. The goal is to see clearly what each friendship is built on, so you know what it can carry and what it cannot. A utility friend is great for professional help. Do not ask them to carry your deepest fears. A pleasure friend is great for fun. Do not expect them to be there in crisis. A virtue friend can carry weight. Do not take them for granted.

The Test Question. For each friendship, ask: If the usefulness ended, or the pleasure stopped, would this friendship survive? If yes, it may be the third kind. If no, it is the first or second. This is not a judgment. It is a diagnosis. Knowing what a friendship is built on tells you what you can ask of it — and what you owe it.

Invest in the Third Kind. Identify one friendship that is — or could be — the third kind. This month, invest in it. Not with a grand gesture. With real conversations. Tell them something true about your life. Ask them something true about theirs. Be reliable when they need you. The third kind is not declared. It is built, through shared life, one conversation at a time.

The Mirror Exercise. Aristotle says you become like the people you spend your life with. Audit your closest friendships. What qualities do your friends have that you admire? What qualities do they have that you are absorbing — for better or for worse? If you are becoming like them, is that a good thing? The exercise is not about dropping friends. It is about awareness. Your friends are shaping you. Do you want the shape they are making?

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle says the third kind of friendship requires moral similarity — you cannot be deep friends with someone whose values you do not share. But he also says friendship is a mirror: you become like your friends. Is this a contradiction? If you can only be friends with people who are already like you, how do you grow? Or is the point that growth happens *through* the friendship — that being around a good person makes you better, even if you started from a different place? What does this mean for friendships across difference — political, religious, cultural? Can the third kind of friendship cross those lines, or does it require shared moral ground?

Chapter 4: Contemplation as the Highest Happiness



Illustration for Chapter 4

In the final book of the *Nicomachean Ethics*, Aristotle says something that seems to contradict everything that came before. After nine books arguing that the good life is a life of moral and political action — courage, generosity, friendship, civic engagement — he argues that the highest happiness is contemplation.

*If happiness is activity in accordance with virtue, it is reasonable that it should be in accordance with the highest virtue; and this will be the virtue of the best part of us. Whether this be reason or something else that is thought to be naturally our ruler and guide and to be concerned with what is noble and divine... this activity would be the complete happiness of man. (*Nicomachean Ethics* X.7, 1177a12–18)*

The argument is that contemplation (*theoria*) is the highest activity because it is the most continuous (you can think longer than you can do anything else), the most self-sufficient (you need less equipment, fewer external goods), the most pleasant (not fun, but deeply satisfying), loved for its own sake (nobody contemplates to get something else), and the most divine (the gods, if they exist, would think, not manage politics). Contemplation is the activity that most resembles the life of the divine.

This creates what scholars call the inclusivity problem. Is Aristotle saying the best life is *only* contemplation — withdrawing from the world to think? Or is he saying contemplation is the *peak* of a complete human life, which also requires moral virtue, friendship, and civic engagement? If the first, then the moral life of the first nine books is demoted. If the second, contemplation completes the moral life but does not replace it.

The debate has shaped Aristotelian scholarship for a century. The "dominant" reading, associated with W. F. R. Hardie and others, holds that Aristotle identifies a single highest good — contemplation — and subordinates all other goods to it. On this reading, the *Ethics* ends by saying that the moral life, for all its value, is second-best. The "inclusivist" reading, defended by J. L. Ackrill, holds that *eudaimonia* is an inclusive whole — a life that includes contemplation, moral virtue, friendship, and external goods — and that contemplation is the *highest element* within it, not a replacement for the rest. On this reading, the *Ethics* is a harmonious account of a complete good life.

There is a third reading, associated with Sarah Broadie, that tries to reconcile both. Aristotle is not choosing between contemplation and action. He is describing two aspects of a single good life. The moral life is the *necessary condition* of *eudaimonia* — you cannot flourish without virtue, friendship, and civic engagement. Contemplation is the *peak* of *eudaimonia* — the highest single activity within a complete life. The two are not competitors. They are complements. A good life is moral action with moments of contemplation. For a few — philosophers, scientists, scholars — it may be a life organized around contemplation. For

most, it is a moral life with contemplation as an occasional peak. Both are genuine forms of flourishing. Contemplation is higher, but the moral life is not thereby worthless.

Aristotle connects contemplation to the divine. The Unmoved Mover — his name for the ultimate cause of all motion — is pure thought thinking itself (*noesis noeseos*). It is eternal, immaterial, and its activity is contemplation. When a human being contemplates, they are doing, for a finite time, what the divine does eternally. Contemplation is the point at which human life touches something beyond itself.

This is not a religious claim in the modern sense. Aristotle's Unmoved Mover is not the God of the Bible. It does not create the world, love humanity, or answer prayers. It is a metaphysical principle. But it is also the highest thing Aristotle can imagine — a mind that thinks perfectly, forever, without needing anything. And when we think — when we look at the stars, or work through a hard problem, or grasp something true about the nature of things — we are doing, for a moment, what that mind does always.

The elitism objection is serious. If the highest happiness is contemplation, does that mean most people — who do not have the time, education, or freedom to contemplate — are excluded from the best life? Aristotle's answer is complicated. He thinks contemplation is the highest activity, but he also thinks the moral life — the life of practical wisdom, friendship, and civic engagement — is available to more people and is a genuine form of flourishing. Not the peak, but a real good. A complete human life, for most people, is a moral life with moments of contemplation. Aristotle does not say everyone must be a philosopher. He says contemplation is the highest happiness, and the moral life is second-best — which is still very good.

The practical question for a modern reader is whether contemplation is a luxury or a necessity. If it is a luxury, then Aristotle's hierarchy is elitist and can be safely ignored by anyone who does not have the leisure to philosophize. If it is a necessity — if the good life requires moments of contemplation, not a life *of* contemplation — then the question is how to make space for it. Not in a monastery. In the fifteen minutes before sleep. In the walk without earbuds. In the Sunday morning with nothing scheduled. In the conversation that goes below the surface. Contemplation does not require a grove in Athens. It requires a mind that is willing to stop doing and start understanding.

The Big Idea

Aristotle's argument for contemplation as the highest happiness creates a tension in the *Ethics* that scholars have debated for two millennia. The best reading is that contemplation is not a replacement for the moral life but its completion. A good human life requires moral

virtue, friendship, and civic engagement. But it also requires moments when you stop doing and start understanding — when you think about what is true, what is good, what is beautiful. Without contemplation, action is blind. Without action, contemplation is empty. The good life is both.

This has a practical implication. If you never stop to think about what your actions are for, you are not living a complete life. You are running on a treadmill. The treadmill may be productive — you may build a career, raise a family, accumulate achievements — but it does not ask the question Aristotle says is the most important: What is the good? What is all this activity *for*? Contemplation is the activity that asks that question. It is not a luxury for the leisured. It is the activity that gives the rest of life its meaning.

Practice

The Daily Contemplation. For one week, spend fifteen minutes every day in pure thought. No phone, no music, no agenda. Sit somewhere quiet. Think about a question that matters to you — not a practical problem to solve, but a question to sit with. What is the good life? What is friendship for? What does it mean to be brave? Do not try to answer the question. Just hold it. Let your mind work on it. Notice what happens to your relationship with your daily activities when you have spent fifteen minutes asking what they are for.

The Hard-Book Practice. Find a book that is genuinely difficult for you. Not impossible, but hard. Read it slowly, for thirty minutes a day, without checking your phone. When you do not understand something, stay with it. Reread. Think about it. This is contemplation applied to a text. You are not reading for information. You are reading for understanding — the activity Aristotle says is the highest happiness.

The Action Audit. List everything you are doing right now — career, family, projects, commitments. For each, ask: When was the last time I thought about *why* I am doing this? If the answer is "never" or "I don't remember," that activity has lost its contemplative grounding. Pick one item and spend fifteen minutes thinking about it. What is it for? What good does it aim at? Is it still worth doing?

The Inclusivity Test. What would it look like to organize your life around contemplation? What would you have to give up? What would you gain? Now what would it look like to organize your life around moral action — friendship, service, civic engagement — with contemplation as an occasional peak? Which life is available to you? Which do you want? The test is not to choose. It is to see the two options clearly and understand what each requires.

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle says contemplation is the most self-sufficient activity — you need less equipment, fewer external goods, to think than to do anything else. But is that true? Contemplation requires free time, education, safety, and a degree of material security. If you are struggling to survive, you may not have the luxury to contemplate. Does this make Aristotle's hierarchy elitist? Or does it simply name a condition that most people can meet at least occasionally — the fifteen minutes before sleep, the walk without earbuds, the Sunday morning with nothing scheduled? What would it take to make contemplation available to more people, not just to those who can afford it? And what is lost when a society makes contemplation impossible for most of its members?

Chapter 5: The Four Causes — Why Things Are the Way They Are



Illustration for Chapter 5

Aristotle's four causes are one of his most influential and most contested ideas. He presents them in the *Physics* (Book II, Chapter 3) and the *Metaphysics* (Book V, Chapter 2). The argument is that to explain anything fully, you need four kinds of answer.

Material cause — What is it made of? A statue is made of bronze. A house is made of wood and stone. A human being is made of flesh and bone. The material cause is the stuff out of which a thing is made.

Formal cause — What kind of thing is it? The statue has the shape of a god. The house has the form of a house. A human being has the form of a human being — a living, rational animal. The formal cause is the pattern, structure, or essence that makes the thing the kind of thing it is.

Efficient cause — What brought it into being? The sculptor made the statue. The carpenter made the house. The parents made the child. The efficient cause is the agent or process that produced the thing.

Final cause — What is it for? The statue exists to honor a god. The house exists to provide shelter. The heart exists to pump blood. The final cause is the purpose, end, or *telos* for which the thing exists.

*That for the sake of which something comes to be, and the good for the sake of which it comes to be — this is a cause. (*Physics* II.3, 195a23–24)*

The four causes are a theory of explanation. Aristotle is saying that a complete explanation of anything requires all four. If you know what a thing is made of but not what it is for, you do not really understand it. If you know what brought it about but not what kind of thing it is, you do not really understand it. Full understanding requires material, formal, efficient, and final causes.

The framework is connected to Aristotle's hylomorphism — the doctrine that substances are composed of matter (*hyle*) and form (*morphe*). A bronze statue is not just bronze; it is bronze shaped in a certain way. A human being is not just a body; it is a body animated by a soul. The soul is the form of the body — what makes it alive, what makes it the kind of living thing it is.

*We can dismiss as unnecessary the question whether the soul and the body are one: it is as though we were to ask whether the wax and its shape are one. (*On the Soul* II.1, 412b6–8)*

This is Aristotle's answer to both materialism and Platonism. Things are not just stuff (materialism). But form is not a separate thing floating in a realm of its own (Platonism).

Form is the principle that makes matter what it is. The soul is not a ghost in a machine. It is what makes the body alive — the way the shape of a statue makes the bronze a statue.

Hylomorphism raises a question that has driven philosophy of mind for two thousand years: the problem of personal identity. If a thing is matter plus form, what persists over time? A statue can lose some bronze and gain new bronze and remain the same statue. A human body replaces most of its cells over a lifetime. Are you the same person because your matter persists (but it doesn't, entirely), or because your form persists (but what is form, if not the pattern of matter)? Aristotle's hylomorphism does not resolve this. It frames it. The debate continues in contemporary philosophy of mind, from the neo-Aristotelian account of hylomorphic personal identity (Patrick Toner, Robert Koons) to the opposing view that persons are best understood as psychological continuities rather than hylomorphic composites.

The most controversial of the four causes is the final cause — purpose, *telos*. Aristotle's natural philosophy is thoroughly teleological: it explains things by their ends. "Nature does nothing in vain," he says repeatedly (*On the Soul* III.13, 435a18; *Politics* I.2, 1253a9). The structure of an animal's body, the growth of a plant, the fall of a stone — all can be understood as movements toward a natural end. A bird's wing exists for the sake of flight. A fish's gill exists for the sake of breathing underwater. The eye exists for the sake of seeing.

Modern science largely abandoned final causes in physics. The Scientific Revolution replaced "what is it for?" with "what caused it?" — efficient causes, not final causes. A stone does not fall because it is "trying to reach its natural place." It falls because gravity accelerates it. The question "what is a stone for?" does not have a scientific answer in physics.

But final causes survived in two places. First, in biology, where functional explanation is still indispensable. Why does the heart have four chambers? To pump blood efficiently. Why do birds have hollow bones? To reduce weight for flight. These are final-cause explanations, and they are not replaceable by efficient-cause explanations. You can describe the evolutionary mechanism (efficient cause) that produced hollow bones — natural selection favored lighter skeletons — but you still need the functional explanation (final cause) to understand why the trait was selected. Biology is still teleological, even if physics is not. This is the core of a live scholarly debate: whether biological teleology is real teleology (functions are genuine features of the world) or merely heuristic shorthand for evolutionary adaptation (functions are useful fictions). The debate, associated with philosophers like Ruth Millikan, Karen Neander, and Ernest Lepore, shows no sign of resolution. But the fact that it is a *live* debate — that philosophers of biology still argue about whether functions are real — is itself a testament to the enduring force of Aristotle's question.

Second, in ordinary reasoning about human action. Why did you build that bookshelf? The material cause is wood and screws. The formal cause is the design. The efficient cause is you, with tools. The final cause is to hold your books. Try explaining the bookshelf without the final cause. You can describe the wood, the shape, and the construction in infinite detail, and you still will not understand why it exists. For that, you need to know what it is for. Human action is irreducibly teleological. We do things for reasons, and reasons are final causes. This is why the social sciences, which study human action, cannot fully eliminate teleological explanation. You cannot explain a war, an election, or a career without reference to the purposes of the agents involved. Efficient causes alone do not capture human action.

The four causes are also a tool for self-understanding. Apply them to your own life. Material cause: what are you made of — physically, temperamentally, socially? Formal cause: what kind of person are you — what is your character, your form? Efficient cause: what made you who you are — parents, education, experiences, choices? Final cause: what are you for? This last question is the hardest and the most important. Aristotle's answer is that the final cause of a human being is *eudaimonia* — flourishing. But what does that mean, specifically, for you? What are *you* for?

The Big Idea

Aristotle's four causes are a theory of what a complete explanation requires. To understand anything, you need to know: what it is made of (material), what kind of thing it is (formal), what brought it about (efficient), and what it is for (final). The most important and most contested is the final cause — purpose, *telos*. Modern science abandoned final causes in physics, but they survive in biology (where functional explanation is indispensable) and in ordinary reasoning about human action (where purpose is irreducible). The framework also applies to yourself: what are you made of, what kind of person are you, what made you, and what are you for? The last question is the one Aristotle spent his career thinking about.

Practice

Four Causes for an Object. Pick any object near you. Ask the four questions: What is it made of? What kind of thing is it? What made it? What is it for? Write down the answers. Notice which question is easiest and which is hardest. The final cause is almost always the hardest — and the most revealing.

Four Causes for a Living Thing. Go outside and find a plant or animal. Apply the four causes. For a living thing, the final cause is usually connected to survival and reproduction — but ask deeper. What is the *good* of this thing? What does it do well? What is its *telos*? Aristotle says "nature does nothing in vain." Whether or not you agree, the exercise of asking what a living thing is for changes how you see it.

Four Causes for an Institution. Apply the four causes to something social — a school, a company, a government, a religion. Material: what is it made of (people, buildings, money)? Formal: what kind of institution is it (what is its structure)? Efficient: what created it (history, founders, events)? Final: what is it for? The final cause of an institution is often contested — people disagree about what a school or a government is for. The four-cause analysis makes the disagreement visible.

Four Causes for Yourself. Apply the four causes to your own life. Material: what are you made of? Formal: what kind of person are you? Efficient: what made you who you are? Final: what are you for? Write a one-page response to all four. The page on the final cause will be the hardest to write — and the most important.

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle says "nature does nothing in vain" — every natural feature has a purpose. Modern evolutionary biology explains apparent design without attributing intentions to nature: wings exist because they were selected for, not because nature "wanted" flight. Is Aristotle's teleology simply wrong, superseded by Darwin? Or did he identify a kind of explanation — functional explanation — that evolutionary biology still needs, even if it rejects the metaphysical claim that nature has intentions? If biology still needs final-cause explanations (the heart is *for* pumping blood), then Aristotle's framework is not obsolete. It is partially right, partially wrong, and the boundary between the two is one of the most interesting questions in philosophy of science. Where do you draw the line — and what does your answer reveal about your own assumptions about nature, purpose, and the structure of reality?

Chapter 6: The Unmoved Mover — The First Cause of All Motion

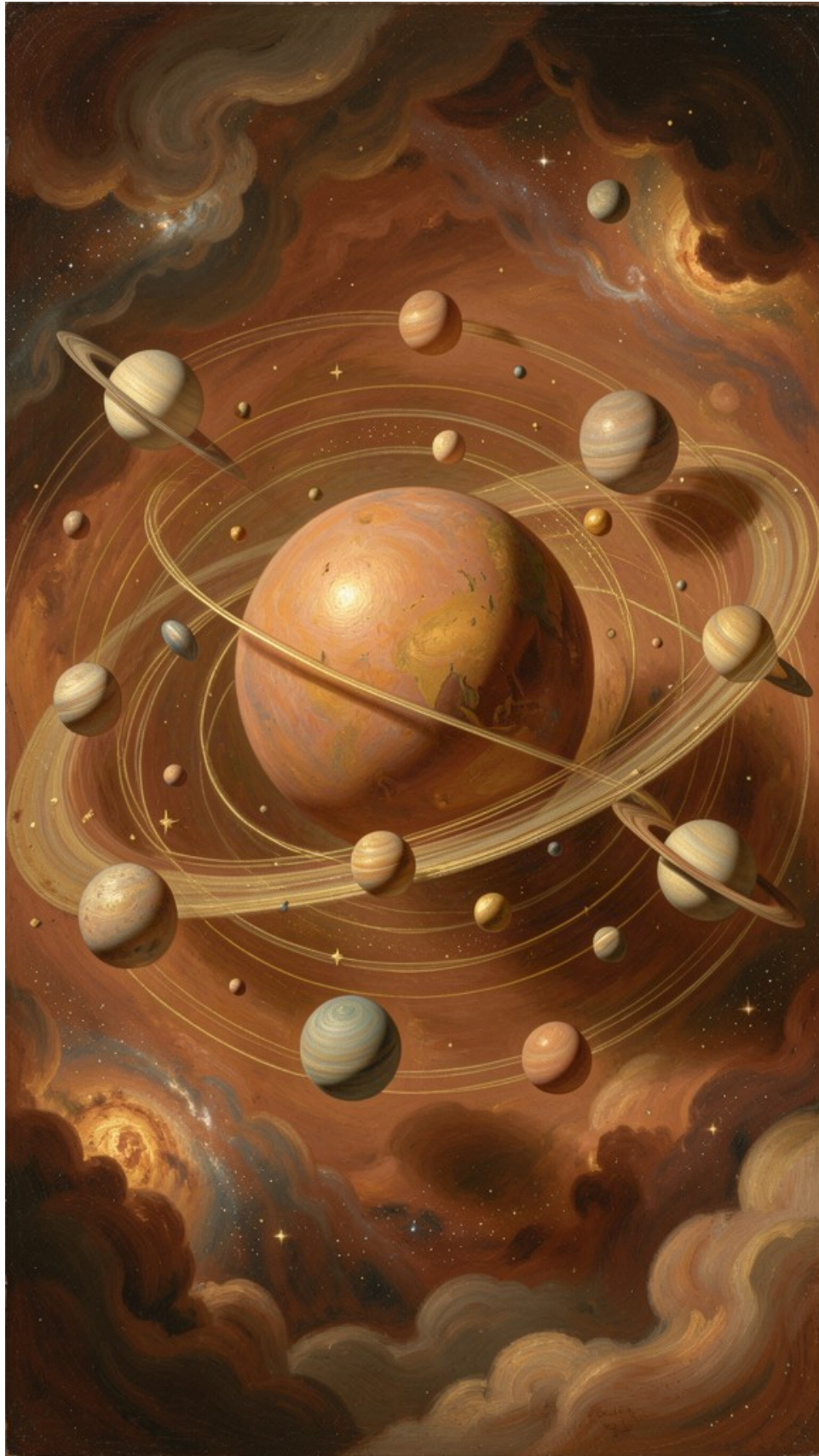


Illustration for Chapter 6

Aristotle's argument for the Unmoved Mover is in *Physics* Book VIII and *Metaphysics* Book XII. It is one of the most influential arguments in the history of philosophy, and it addresses one of the oldest and deepest questions: Why is there motion rather than rest?

The argument, stripped to its skeleton:

1. Everything that is in motion is moved by something else. (Aristotle defines motion as the actualization of a potential. Whatever is moving from potential to actual must be moved by something already actual. A cold stone becomes warm because something warm acts on it. A seed becomes a tree because the form of the tree, present in the parent, guides the growth.)
2. The chain of movers cannot go back to infinity. (If every mover is itself moved by another mover, and that by another, *ad infinitum*, there is no first mover. But an infinite chain of dependent movers explains nothing — the motion is never accounted for. There must be a starting point, a first mover that is not itself moved.)
3. Therefore, there must be a first mover that is itself unmoved. (This is the Unmoved Mover — *to kinoun akineton*. It causes motion without being moved. It is the beginning of the chain.)

*There is, then, something which is always moved with an unceasing motion, which is motion in a circle... and therefore there must be something which moves it. And since that which is moved and moves is intermediate, there must be something which moves without being moved. (*Physics* VIII.6, 258b10–15)*

The crucial question is how the Unmoved Mover causes motion. It does not push. It is not a physical force. Aristotle's answer: the Unmoved Mover causes motion as an object of desire and thought. It moves the heavens the way a loved object moves the lover, or the way beautiful music moves a dancer. It does not act on the world. It attracts the world. The cosmos is drawn toward it because it is the most beautiful, the most good, the most perfect thing there is.

The Unmoved Mover is pure actuality — *energeia* with no *dynamis*, no potentiality. It cannot change, because change is the actualization of a potential, and it has no potential. It cannot come to be or pass away. It is eternal. It is immaterial. It is divine. Its activity is contemplation — pure thought thinking itself (*noesis noeseos*). It thinks about itself, because there is nothing better to think about.

*It is a life such as the best which we enjoy, and enjoy for but a short time... its life is of such as ours for a short time, but its life is always so. (*Metaphysics* XII.7, 1072b14–16)*

This is not the God of the Bible. The Unmoved Mover does not create the world, love humanity, or answer prayers. It is a metaphysical principle — the ultimate explanation for why there is motion rather than rest. But it is also, in a sense, divine. It is eternal, perfect, and the object of the highest activity (contemplation). When a human being contemplates, they are doing, for a finite time, what the Unmoved Mover does eternally.

The argument had an enormous afterlife. In the Middle Ages, Jewish, Islamic, and Christian theologians saw it as a philosophical anticipation of God. Moses Maimonides adapted it in the *Guide for the Perplexed*. Avicenna and Averroes debated it in the Islamic tradition — Averroes argued that there was a single Unmoved Mover, while other Islamic philosophers allowed for multiple movers. Thomas Aquinas adapted it as the First of his Five Ways to prove the existence of God, transforming Aristotle's metaphysical principle into a theological argument. The adaptation required significant reinterpretation: Aristotle's Unmoved Mover does not create, does not love, and does not know the world. Aquinas's God does all three. The gap between the two is the space in which centuries of natural theology were conducted.

The argument has been challenged at every point. David Hume, in *Dialogues Concerning Natural Religion* and *An Enquiry Concerning Human Understanding*, argued that the causal principle does not extend beyond our experience. We have no experience of the beginning of the universe, so we cannot reason about its first cause. The principle "everything has a cause" is derived from our experience of events within the universe, and it may not apply to the universe as a whole. Immanuel Kant, in the *Critique of Pure Reason*, argued that the concept of a necessary being is incoherent — that reason runs into contradictions (antinomies) when it tries to go beyond possible experience. Modern cosmology describes a universe that began with the Big Bang, about 13.8 billion years ago, and may not require a first cause in the Aristotelian sense. Some physicists argue that the question "what caused the Big Bang?" is meaningless because there was no "before" — time itself began with the Big Bang. Others propose a multiverse or a cyclical universe in which the chain of physical causes extends further back than our universe.

But the question does not go away. Even if you accept the Big Bang as the beginning of the physical universe, you can still ask: Why is there something rather than nothing? Why is there a universe at all? And if you say "brute fact" — there just is, no explanation — you are making a metaphysical commitment that is not obviously better than Aristotle's. You are saying the chain of explanation stops at something that has no explanation. Aristotle says the chain stops at something that is its own explanation — pure actuality, the Unmoved Mover. The difference is not between explanation and no explanation. It is between two different accounts of where explanation stops.

The argument does not prove the God of any religion. It argues that the chain of motion requires a starting point. What that starting point is — God, the Big Bang, the Unmoved Mover, brute fact — depends on your metaphysics. The argument tells you there must be a something. It does not tell you what the something is. That question — what is at the beginning of the chain? — is the question every metaphysics must answer. Aristotle's answer is one option. It is not the only one. But it is the one that has shaped more of Western thought than any other.

The Big Idea

Aristotle's Unmoved Mover is his answer to: Why is there motion rather than rest? The argument: everything in motion is moved by something else. The chain cannot go back to infinity. Therefore, there must be a first mover that moves without being moved. The Unmoved Mover causes motion not by pushing but by attracting — as an object of desire and thought. It is pure actuality, eternal, immaterial, and divine.

The argument has been adapted by theologians and challenged by philosophers and scientists. But the question it addresses — why is there something rather than nothing? — remains live. Even modern cosmology, which traces the universe back to the Big Bang, does not answer the question of what caused the Big Bang, or why there is a universe at all. Aristotle's argument does not settle the matter. But it identifies the question, and it argues that the question requires an answer. The chain of causes cannot be infinite. There must be a starting point. What that starting point is — that is the question every metaphysics must answer.

Practice

Trace the Chain. Pick something that is moving right now — a bird, a car, a cloud, your own hand. Ask: What is moving it? Then ask: What moved that? Keep going. How far can you trace the chain? Where does it stop? This is the exercise Aristotle is running in *Physics* Book VIII. You probably will not reach the Unmoved Mover. But you will feel the shape of the question. Everything in motion is moved by something else. Where does the chain stop?

The Dancer and the Music. The next time you see someone moved by music — dancing, swaying, tapping a foot — ask: What is moving them? The music does not push them. It draws them. They move because the music is beautiful. This is how Aristotle imagines the Unmoved Mover. It does not push the universe. The universe is drawn toward it because it is the most beautiful and most good thing there is. The image is not a proof. But it is a way

of understanding what kind of cause the Unmoved Mover is — an attractive cause, not a mechanical one.

The Infinite Chain Objection. Aristotle says the chain of movers cannot be infinite. Write the strongest objection you can to this claim. Why might an infinite chain be acceptable? (Hint: some modern philosophers argue that an infinite causal chain is logically possible, even if it is psychologically unsatisfying.) Then write Aristotle's best response. The exercise is not to settle the question. It is to see both sides clearly.

The Metaphysics Test. Aristotle's argument concludes that there must be a first cause. What is yours? Write one paragraph: What do you think is at the beginning of the chain of motion — God, the Big Bang, the Unmoved Mover, brute fact, something else? Then write one paragraph on why. The goal is not to prove anything. It is to discover your own metaphysical commitments — the assumptions about reality that you bring to the question before you start arguing.

A Reflective Prompt

Aristotle's Unmoved Mover is pure thought thinking itself — eternal, immaterial, divine, and completely indifferent to the world it moves. It does not create, love, or care. It attracts. Later theologians, especially Aquinas, saw this as a philosophical road to God. But the gap between Aristotle's Unmoved Mover and the God of the Bible is enormous. Can Aristotle's argument be honestly adapted to prove the God of a religion? Or does it prove, at most, a metaphysical principle — a first cause that may or may not be personal, conscious, or loving? What is at stake in this question, and what does your answer reveal about the relationship between philosophy and theology — between reason and faith — in your own thinking?

For the Grown-Up Reader

This booklet adapts Aristotle's surviving works — primarily the *Nicomachean Ethics*, *Physics*, *Metaphysics*, *On the Soul*, *Politics*, and *Poetics* — into narrative essays for adult readers. The historical context (Aristotle's life from 384 to 322 BCE, his twenty years in Plato's Academy, his tutoring of Alexander, his founding of the Lyceum around 335 BCE, his empirical method) is drawn from Diogenes Laërtius and the scholarly tradition, as summarized in Jonathan Barnes's edition of the complete works.

The philosophical analysis reflects mainstream scholarly interpretation, with attention to the major debates: the inclusivity problem (is the best life contemplative or active?), the

naturalistic fallacy objection to the function argument (Moore, Nussbaum), the unity of virtue thesis, the problem of *akrasia* (weakness of will, from Davidson to contemporary action theory), the status of final causes in modern science (the biological teleology debate), and the relationship between the Unmoved Mover and the God of theism (from Aquinas to Hume to Kant to modern cosmology). Sources are cited by work and, where applicable, by the standard Bekker page references.

A note on Aristotle's difficult passages: the *Politics* contains defenses of slavery and the subordination of women that modern readers find troubling. These are not incidental. They are part of Aristotle's teleological framework — he believed some people were "natural slaves" and that women were naturally subordinate. These claims are wrong, and they should be confronted directly, not ignored. Aristotle's method — careful observation, clear definition, balanced judgment — is still a model for thinking. But his conclusions are not always ours, and the places where they diverge are instructive. The task is not to make Aristotle agree with us, but to read him honestly — including the parts we wish were not there.

About WisdomForge

WisdomForge adapts the great philosophers into stories, audio, and conversation for every age. Each philosopher becomes four booklets — one for children, one for younger teens, one for older adolescents, and one for adults — so the same ideas can grow with you. The Aristotle series covers the good life and *eudaimonia*, the doctrine of the mean, the three kinds of friendship, contemplation as the highest happiness, the four causes, and the Unmoved Mover — the same system, told at four levels of depth.

Sources

Primary

- Aristotle. *The Complete Works of Aristotle: The Revised Oxford Translation*. Edited by Jonathan Barnes. 2 vols. Princeton University Press, 1984. - Aristotle. *Nicomachean Ethics*. Translated by Terence Irwin. Hackett Publishing, 1999. - Aristotle. *Politics*. Translated by Carnes Lord. University of Chicago Press, 1984. - Aristotle. *Metaphysics*. Translated by Joe Sachs. Green Lion Press, 2002. - Aristotle. *Physics*. Translated by Joe Sachs. Green Lion Press, 1995. - Aristotle. *On the Soul*. Translated by Joe Sachs. Green Lion Press, 2001. - Aristotle. *Poetics*. Translated by Stephen Halliwell. Harvard University Press, 1995. - Aristotle. *Rhetoric*. Translated by W. Rhys Roberts. Oxford University Press, 1924.

Secondary

- Ackrill, J. L. *Aristotle the Philosopher*. Oxford University Press, 1981. - Barnes, Jonathan. *Aristotle: A Very Short Introduction*. Oxford University Press, 2000. - Broadie, Sarah. *Ethics with Aristotle*. Oxford University Press, 1991. - Lear, Jonathan. *Aristotle: The Desire to Understand*. Cambridge University Press, 1988. - Nussbaum, Martha. *The Fragility of Goodness*. Cambridge University Press, 1986. - Rorty, Amélie Oksenberg, ed. *Essays on Aristotle's Ethics*. University of California Press, 1980. - Shields, Christopher. *Aristotle*. Routledge, 2007.

Adapted by Aiona Edge for WisdomForge Chief AI Research Scientist, SMF Works